Journal of Destination Marketing & Management 6 (2017) 243–251

Contents lists available at ScienceDirect

Journal of Destination Marketing & Management

journal homepage: www.elsevier.com/locate/jdmm

Research paper

Analysing tourism slogans in top tourism destinations

Nuria Galí*, Raquel Camprubí, José A. Donaire

Faculty of Tourism, University of Girona, Pl. Ferreter Mora, 1, 17071 Girona, Spain

ARTICLE INFO

Article history:
Received 23 November 2015
Received in revised form
22 April 2016
Accepted 24 April 2016
Available online 11 May 2016

Keywords:
Slogan
Tourism destination
Destination slogan
Brand communication
World destinations
DMO

ABSTRACT

A tourism destination's slogan is an important tool in the development of its national brand. However, few studies have focused on this issue. Therefore, the main purpose of this paper is to examine the characteristics of 150 tourism destinations, considering three geographical levels: countries, regions and cities, and to evaluate them by means of content analysis. The study tests eight different items for each slogan adopted from previous studies. Findings reveal that slogans tend to be very simple and have an exclusive appeal, which comes from emphasising the affective component in the message.

© 2016 Elsevier Ltd. All rights reserved.

1. Introduction

Rome is often referred to as the Eternal City, and Paris the City of Light. These two destinations have been able to link their brand to notions recognised practically everywhere. This is not the result of an advertising campaign but of a largely spontaneous process that reinforces the brand image (brand equity) of a city or country. Within the context of global competition and a growing number of destinations, managers are more focused than ever on consolidating their brand image.

A brand comprises three elements: brand name, logo and slogan. All these elements have prime importance and serve different functions in the shaping the brand image. Names and logos are somewhat limited in their ability to articulate a message, but a slogan can partially bridge this gap. 'Slogans can serve as "hooks" or "handles" in capturing the meaning of a brand and in relaying what makes the brand special' (Kohli, Leuthesser, & Suri, 2007, p. 416). At the same time, while a name or a logo cannot easily be changed, slogans can, and thus have a very relevant function in the most dynamic part of the brand, and can act as a "bridge between brand's legacy and its envolving image" (Kohli et al., 2007, p. 416).

A slogan is a short phrase used to convey descriptive and persuasive information about a particular brand (Keller, 2003; Ortega, Mora, & Rauld, 2006; Supphellen, & Nygaardsvick, 2002). Applied to a tourist destination brand, the purpose of a slogan is to communicate the key features of that destination in the most eloquent way possible (Supphellen & Nygaardsvick, 2002). Slogans have three complementary functions: firstly to enhance a brand's image; secondly to aid in its recognition; and thirdly to help create brand differentiation in the consumer's mind (Kohli et al., 2007).

Some destinations have managed to create dynamic, evocative and easily recognizable slogans, strategically positioning them on the national and international market. These include the renowned 'I Love New York', which since the late 70s has remained the most renowned tourism slogan in history (Godfrey, 1984; Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997). Also, in the words of Letho, Lee, and Ismail (2014), is 'the well-know slogan "What happens in Las Vegas stays in Las Vegas" [which is] designed to elicit a specific emotive response'. One of the most daring is the 2009 Colombia campaign, 'Colombia, the only risk is wanting to stay', which coincided with a 140% increase in international tourist arrivals (World Tourism Organisation, 2012). While it cannot be said that cause and effect exists, the number of international tourists visiting the country vastly increased in the year following the campaign.

Other destinations have, however, created slogans that have not managed to generate the same impact (Lehto et al., 2014). One such case would be the Bangladesh slogan 'Visit Bangladesh before the tourists come!', which, despite the impact of the message, did not have the desired effect; or the controversial 2006 tourism campaign slogan for Australia, which read, 'So where the bloody hell are you?', and was banned in many countries.

Despite the importance of slogans in constructing brands, the academic world has paid little attention to the study and analysis of slogans used by tourist destinations as an element of brand

* Corresponding author.
E-mail addresses: nuria.gali@udg.edu (N. Galí), raquel.camprubi@udg.edu (R. Camprubí), ja.donaire@udg.edu (J.A. Donaire).

http://dx.doi.org/10.1016/j.jdmm.2016.04.004
2212-571X/© 2016 Elsevier Ltd. All rights reserved.

positioning (Keller, 2003; Pike, 2004). This research begins to address this limitation by using content analysis to empirically examine the tourism slogans of 150 of the main tourism destinations around the world, taking the national, regional and local scope into account.

The paper is divided into the following sections: Firstly, a literature review focuses on the main issues related to branding and slogans. Secondly, the methodology employed is briefly explained, in line with the structure of similar studies (Donaire & Galí, 2012; Garrido & Ramos, 2006; Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997; Lee, Cai, & O'leary, 2006; Ortega et al., 2006). Then follows the results of the study, emphasising quantitative aspects such as the length of slogans as well as other more qualitative aspects such as their semantic field. Finally, the main conclusions of the study are presented.

2. Literature review

2.1. The concept of branding

A brand is a name, term, sign, symbol or design, or a combination of these, employed to differentiate a product from its competitors (Aaker, 1996; Keller, 2003; Munar, 2009). A brand makes it easier to identify and differentiate a product (Rooney, 1995; Balakrishnan, 2009; Gartner, 2009), in order to have an advantage when selling it. Brands transmit 'emotions that consumers recall or experience when they think of a specific symbol, product, service, organisation or location' (Simeon, 2006, p. 464). Kotler and Gertner (2002) conclude that strong brands not only attract consumers but also investment and business. Branding has emerged as a top priority in the last decade, due to the growing realisation the brands are one of the most valuage intangible assets that businesses have (Keller & Lehmann, 2006).

Keller (2003) identified a number of benefits of brands. Among the most relevant can be mentioned that a brand differentiates one product from another, as well as the producer assumes ownership and responsibility for it. A brand also reduces risks and increases trust in the product's quality (Gartner, 2009; Knox, 2004). A brand helps the consumer to remember a product when it satisfies their needs and is convincing. The main dimensions of a destination brand said to be are awareness, image, loyalty, quality and value (Gartner, 2009).

Destination branding has caught the attention of both the tourism industry and academics, generating a multitude of documents, research papers and books. However, the majority of these studies focus on image (Blain, Levy, & Ritchie, 2005; Cai, Gartner, & Munar, 2009), as image is closely related to the concept of brand (Cai, 2002), and notions of image are usually involved when a destination brand is conceptualised (Tasci, and Gartner, 2009). While image, as an element of a brand, has received ample attention (Cai, 2002; Fakeye & Crompton, 1991; Gartner, 1994), other aspects of branding, such as slogans, still require detailed review (Cai, 2002; Fakeye & Crompton, 1991; Gartner, 1994).

2.2. The successful slogan

The literature on slogans, and tourist slogans in particular, has identified a series of characteristics that a good slogan should have in order to be effective and successful. The majority of these studies differentiate between: (1) media exposure and the effect advertising campaigns have on brand recall and brand recognition (Kohli, Thomas, & Suri, 2013), and (2) the intrinsic characteristics of slogan design which help reinforce the brand image. The present article focuses on this second area.

Dahlen and Rosengren (2005) emphasised that the key to a successful slogan was found in the following elements: the medium- and long-term picture; the positioning tool; the link between slogan and brand; the jingle effect; repetition; and the use of slogans and creativity. In a wider sense, the literature on tourism slogans has defined a number of features that a good slogan should have in order to be effective and successful: it should be short, entertaining, credible, durable, unique, concise, direct and appropriate. This, however, is not always achieved.

Authors largely agree on the importance of reflecting in the message that attribute which best characterizes and distinguishes the destination (Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997; Kohli et al., 2007; Lee et al., 2006; Obiol, 2002; Ortega et al., 2006; Pike, 2004; Richardson & Cohen, 1993), thereby avoiding heterogeneity in promoting the destination. There would therefore appear to be a broad consensus on the fact that those slogans that customize the message and focus on a differentiating feature achieve a better positioning of the destination, more singularization and greater recognition (Donaire & Galí, 2012). Conversely, those slogans that try to sell everything do not show anything representative of the destination, and end up being excessively generic and unoriginal. Lee et al. (2006) argued that many destinations try to sell nature and heritage simultaneously, which means they cease to be unique attributes. In addition, the message often conveyed by such slogans is applicable to many other places. As Pike (2004) stated, seeking out what makes a destination different generates powerful brands.

Authors also agree on the importance of associating the brand with the slogan. Integrating the brand within the slogan itself facilitates recall and association with the brand (Garrido, 2005; Kohli et al., 2007; Obiol, 2002; Ortega et al., 2006). Although the inclusion of the brand in the slogan may limit creativity, the potential benefits are huge (Kohli et al., 2007). Hence, it seems that tourist destinations are more likely to use slogans integrating the destination in the message itself (Ortega et al., 2006). In addition, if the destination is not well known, integrating it within the slogan will help with identification (Ortega et al., 2006).

Some studies highlight the relevance of slogan length. The slogan should convey the key idea in a few words (Garrido & Ramos, 2006). As Donaire and Galí (2012) state, since the main purpose of a slogan is retention, slogans tend to simplify as far as possible. That is, short slogans tend to be more easily remembered than those containing many words (Ortega et al., 2006; Pike, 2004). Donaire and Galí (2012), in their study of Catalan municipalities (Catalonia, Spain), use slogans with an average number of 4.9 words: a very similar result to that obtained by Ortega et al. (2006) in their study of Spanish slogans.

A slogan should also be easy to remember. Ease of recall increases when slogans are easy to repeat or contain rhyme, rhythm or alliteration (Supphellen & Nygaardsvick, 2002). Therefore, they must be original, ingenious and memorable: capable of impacting the consumer and positioning themselves in their mind, which is why they often use rhymes, puns, alliteration, analogies, syllogisms, and so on. A clear example of this would be the Amsterdam slogan, 'I Amsterdam', created in 2004, which makes use of a clever pun. 'I Amsterdam' is a motto and a brand all in one for both the people of Amsterdam and the city itself.

Furthermore, the clarity of the message must be taken into account. The slogan must be a simple statement, concise, unequivocal, direct and appropriate. Thus, if a slogan requires further promotional material to make it understandable, it loses effectiveness (Pike, 2004). Slogans should be expressed in simple terms and clearly focused on their purpose. In addition, the message should provoke positive emotions. Letho et al. (2014), in their study of the affective responses to 10 US destinations and slogans conducted on a group of 272 students, show that a slogan is most clearly effective when it awakens emotions and feelings, and when

it is is associated with the most desirable aspects of the destination.

Finally, various authors highlight the orientation of the message. The slogan has to appeal to the right target (Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997). A tourist slogan may be based on the characteristics of the product on offer, in this case the destination. On other occasions, the slogan may directly challenge the message receiver. In this case, it refers to demand-driven slogans. A clear example of a demand-driven slogan is the renowned 'Virginia is for Lovers', which clearly appeals to one sector of the market. A study carried out by Garrido and Ramos (2006) on slogans in Spanish graphic advertising in 2000 and 2005 showed that in 2000, 33.3% of slogans were aimed at consumers, while by 2005 the percentage of demand-driven messages had slightly increased to 37%.

Despite these criteria, most slogans do not achieve the desired effect because they lack originality, and because they tend towards repeated and standardized content (Donaire & Galí, 2012). Studies by Klenosky and Gitelson (1997) and Obiol (2002) argue that many tourist slogans are made with very little systematization or professionalism, often not responding to a well- thought-out, coherent and rigorous marketing plan for the destination.

2.3. Jingle failure

Slogans for destinations are much more complex to create than those of products, because they have to consider diverse factors which make up the tourist experience as well as social, cultural, economic and political conditions (Supphellen & Nygaardsvik, 2002). Indeed, the task of finding an effective slogan that successfully promotes a tourism destination is difficult and uncertain (Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997; Lehto et al., 2014). Five particular challenges should be considered in this respect.

Firstly there is the challenge of overcoming the recurring problem of creating messages that use attributes common to many destinations (that is, not unique to the destination, see Lee et al., 2006). According to these authors, this category includes slogans based on products that are not unique (common attribute-based). One example is that of the US state of Missouri: 'Where the river runs'. While this slogan clearly wants to singularize the value of the Missouri and Mississipi rivers, other destinations obviously also have rivers of exceptional value (Lee et al., 2006). Although these slogans do highlight a differentiating element of the destination, it is not an attribute exclusive to that destination.

Secondly, destinations have multiple attributes (nature, culture, shopping, ethnography, and so on), and often tend to produce messages that try to include everything. As mentioned earlier, such slogans end up being generic and easily adaptable to many places (Lee et al., 2006). The list of attributes can be so long that the slogan loses any communicative capacity it might have had (Donaire & Galí, 2012). In these cases, furthermore, it is common to find recurrent arguments like 'It is all here', 'All year round' and 'More'; all messages that avoid the details of their attributes (Donaire & Galí., 2012). These slogans can be considered to be totally ineffective.

Thirdly, decision-making is often restricted by the political context. The inconsistency in the message of many slogans (that is, they are abstract, not customized, repetitive, clichéd, etc.) is often due to the prevailing political context (Aaker, 1996; Morgan & Pritchard, 1998; Obiol, 2002; Pike, 2005). They are often politically conditioned by the governing ideology at the time: that is, they depend on political changes that often tend to undo what was already done, radically changing the previous slogan and whole advertising strategy, even if it was successful (Garrido, 2005). Mckercher and Ritchie (1997) mention the example of a local tourism authority in Australia, where four different managers designed four different campaigns over a six-year period. Pressure and decision-making may also sometimes stem from the tourism industry (airlines, travel agents, tour operators, hotel chains, wholesalers, and so on). In Morgan and Pritchard (1998) there is the example of a campaign by the Morocco Tourist Board which was rejected due to pressure exerted by travel agents and tour wholesalers.

Fourthly, advertising campaigns operate in a multitude of heterogeneous and dynamic markets, and one positioning theme may, over time, not be meaningful to each of the multiple market segments of interest (Pike, 2004). One of the biggest challenges is to create slogans capable of adapting to this market diversity.

Finally, in parallel, organizations that promote destinations must now create slogans for an increasingly diverse and micro-segmented demand (Obiol, 2002).

However, there is a significant gap in the literature regarding the characteristics of tourism slogans, making it difficult to establish generic criteria that may be adopted by DMOs. There are very few studies in this area and the majority of those that do exist tend focus on a very specific geographical area.

2.4. Slogans in the face of demand

Researchers have sometimes based analyses of the positive and negative elements of slogan design on their own evaluations. A number of articles testing the effectiveness of slogans, based on potential users' reactions, have recently been published. Dass, Kohli, Kumar, and Thomas (2014), for example, analysed a sample of people's reactions towards familiar national slogans in two phases. In the first phase, 220 people replied, in the second there were 595 replies. Seven characteristics of slogans were identified in the study: message clarity; inclusion of benefit; creativity; brand and product appropriateness; rhymes; brand and name inclusion; and length. To this was added exposure in the media. Results showed that some factors considered common did have an influence on the effectiveness of the slogan, namely message clarity, benefit, creativity or rhythm. Other factors did not demonstrate the effectiveness claimed in the literature comprised slogan length, whether they are brand-appropriate, and if brand name is included.

Kohli et al. (2013), in their study of 220 people, identified four factors of the characteristics of slogans with the aim of measuring their effectiveness. These factors were complexity, length, rhyming and jingle, and the effect of the media. The main conclusion reached was that a conventional laboratory analysis could not take into account other factors, such as competitive interference, a distracted audience, multiple exposures or noise. These can all affect the final perception clients have of a slogan.

Along the same lines, research by Laran, Dalton, and Andrade (2011) went even further to show a paradox in consumers' replies regarding slogans. Their combination of five experiments suggested that consumers did not perceive the name of the brand as a persuasion tactic and thus behaved accordingly. This is known as the priming effect. As slogans are perceived as a persuasion tactic, however, exposure to them could trigger the opposite effect to the one desired. In other words, consumers can react against slogans if they find them tiresome and overexplicit. These articles highlight a new line of work which evaluates the validity of slogans in terms of how they affect their audience. This knowledge guides decision making in relation to brands and determines which factors influence the creation of a good slogan.

The analysis of slogans has aroused interest in the scientific community. However, there is still a considerable lack of literature on brand behaviour within the framework of tourism. This paper aims to bridge this gap, with the systematic analysis of slogans from the main national, regional and local tourist destinations. Slogans are a communication tool, as well as a mechanism for

Table 1
Sample of analysed slogans.

WTO ranking	Country	Slogan	Region		City	
1	France	Rendez-vous en France	Ile de France	Paris We Love You	Paris	Paris for You
2	United States	Discover this land, like never before	New York State	I Love New York	New York	This is New York City
3	Spain	Spain is what you want. Spain is what you need	Catalonia	Catalunya Experience	Barcelona	Barcelona inspires
4	China	Beautiful china	Guangdong	–	Beijing	We are in Beijing
5	Italy	–	Veneto	From Earth to Sky	Roma	Rome & You
6	Turkey	Go turkey	Marmara	–	Antalya	Just Like Heaven
7	Germany	Germany the travel destination	Meckelburg Vompommer	Best of Northern Germany	Berlin	Be Berlin
8	United Kingdom	Britain is Great	Scotland	Brilliant Moments	London	Brought to you
9	Russia	Visit Russia	Central Russia	–	Moscow	Wow! , it's Moscow
10	Thailand	Amazing Thailand it begins with the people	Central Thailand	–	Bangkok	Bangkok smiles
11	Malaysia	Truly Asia	Sarawak	Where adventures lives	Kuala Lumpur	Visit KL
12	Hong Kong	Hong Kong Asia's world city	Hong Kong	Hong Kong Asia's World City	Hong Kong	Hong Kong Asia's World City
13	Austria	Austria arrive and revive	Tirol	The Heart of Alps	Vienna	Now or Never
14	Ukraine	Ukraine. com	Kiev Oblast	–	Kiev	Everything starts in Kiev
15	Mexico	–	Riviera Maya	The Paradise is for ever	Mexico DF	CDMX
16	Greece	Greece, all time classic	Attica	Athens live!	Athens	This is Athens
17	Canada	Keep exploring	Ontario	Yours to Discover	Toronto	See Toronto Now
18	Poland	Move your imagination	Pomerania West	Sea of Adventure	Craiova	Magical Krakow
19	Macau	Touching moments experience	Macau	Experience Macao	Macau	Experience Macao
20	Arabia Saudi	An enriching experience	Region of Mecca	–	Mecca	–
21	Netherlands	–	Limburg	Be Right Back? Always Limburg	Amsterdam	I Amsterdam
22	Republic of Korea	Democratic people's of Korea	Gyeonggi-Do	Global Inspiration	Seoul	I Seoul U
23	Singapore	Your Singapore	Singapore	Your Singapore	Singapore	Your Singapore
24	Croatia	The Mediterranean as it once was	Istria	Green Mediterranean	Zagreb	The city with a million hearts
25	Sweden	Visitsweden	Västsverige	West Sweden	Stockholm	The capital of Scandinavia
26	Hungry	Think Hungry more than expected	Balaton	Where the Most Beautiful Sunset	Budapest	BUDA_PEST
27	Japan	Japan. Endless discovery	Chubu	Go Central Japan	Tokyo	Go Tokyo
28	Morocco	Morocco travel for real	Marrakesh Safi	–	Marrakesh	–
29	United Emirates Arab	Seven emirates one destination	Dubai	Definitely Dubai	Dubai	Definitely Dubai
30	South Africa	Inspiring new ways	Eastern Cape	Adventure Province, Eastern Cape	Johannesburg	Joburg
31	Egypt	Where it all begins	Greater Cairo	–	El Cairo	–
32	Czech Republic	Land of stories	Moldavia - Silesia	Remarkable Experiences	Prague	In the heart of Europe
33	Switzerland	Switzerland. Get natural	Graubünden	Switzerland's No 1 holiday destination	Zürich	World Class. Swiss Made
34	Denmark	Visit Denmark	Hovedstaden	–	Copenhagen	Wonderful Copenhagen
35	Indonesia	Wonderful Indonesia	East java	A Tropical Paradise on the World	Jakarta	Enjoy Jakarta
36	Portugal	Visit Portugal	Algarve	Europe's most famous secret	Lisbon	
37	Belgium	A food lover's dream. A beer lover's heaven	Flanders	State of The Art	Brussels	Sized for tourism & meetings
38	Ireland	Live it	Ireland Ancient East	Wander Through Time	Dublin	A breath of fresh air
39	Taiwan	The heart of Asia	Taiwan	–	Taipei	Wellcome! Travel. Taipei
40	Vietnam	Timeless charm	Ha long bay	Smile, Ha Long	Ho Chi Min	–
41	Bulgaria	–	Yugoiztochen	–	Sofia	–
42	India	Incredible India	Tamil Nadu	Enchanting Tamil Nadu. Experience Yourself	Delhi*	Magnanimous Delhi
43	Australia	Discover why there's nothing like Australia	New south wales	Making it Happen	Sydney	Love every second
44	Tunisia	Free to live it all	Djerba	–	Susa	–
45	Brazil	Sensational Brazil	Rio de Janeiro	–	Rio de Janeiro	Visit. Rio
46	Argentina	–	Buenos Aires	Active as Ever Before	Buenos Aires	Cultural capital of Latin America
47	Kazakhstan	VisitKazakhstan	Astana	–	Astana	–
48	Norway	Powered by nature	Fjord Norway	You have to be here to believe it	Bergen	World Heritage City
49	Dominican Republic	Dominican republic has it all	Bavaro - Punta Cana	–	Santo Domingo	–
50	Philippines	It is more fun in Philippines	NCR Manila	–	Manila	–

detecting which image each destination wishes to project. A slogan is a declaration of intentions, and a way to present what a destination is, or wants to be.

3. Methodology

The World Travel Organisation (UNWTO) annually classifies the 50 top tourism destinations worldwide according to the number of arrivals and tourist expenditure: the resulting ranking tables are known as the World Tourism Barometer. In this paper, national destinations and their corresponding slogans were selected from the list complied for the World Tourism Barometer, 2014 (WTO, 2014). The following procedure was used to choose the selected regions and cities included in the sample. Firstly, the main tourism region for each country was selected according to the number of tourist arrivals. Secondly, the main city destinations were chosen according to the number of tourist arrivals for each country included in the UNWTO ranking.

After defining the 150 tourism destinations, the slogan was searched for on their official websites. If this information was not on the website, then the tourism destination boards were contacted. It should be noted that of the 150 destinations included in the sample, four countries, 14 regions, and nine cities had no slogan. These destinations were therefore excluded, leaving a total of 120 destinations in the study. Table 1 shows the tourism destinations included in the sample and the analysed slogans of each country.

The study was carried out by performing a content analysis on each slogan, considering the appropriateness of this method to the proposed objectives. Content analysis is 'an observational research method that is used to systematically evaluate the actual and symbolic content of all forms of recorded communication' (Kolbe, and Burnett, 1991, p. 243). A total of eight different variables were considered, based on prior studies in the field (Donaire & Galí, 2012; Garrido & Ramos, 2006; Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997; Kohli et al., 2007; Lee et al., 2006; Obiol, 2002; Ortega et al., 2006; Pike & Ryan, 2004), allowing a thorough analysis of the slogans' characteristics to be conducted. The eight variables selected for evaluation were classified into two categories (Table 2):

(1) Structure of the slogan. This section included the number of words, the number of empty words and words with meaning, whether the brand name is included in the slogan or not, and the position of the name in the slogan.
(2) Positioning of the slogan. In order to determine various aspects regarding the positioning of the slogan, who it is directed at, its geographical context appeal, its focus and its semantic field.

According to Kassarjian (1977), reliability refers to the reproducibility of the study and is related to categories selected for content analysis and the interjudge agreement. Validity is defined as the extent to which an instrument measures what it purports to measure. In order to guarantee reliability, the categorisation of slogans was carried out in two steps. Firstly, two different evaluators categorised each slogan independently, according to the pre-established rules (eight previous variables, based on previous studies); and secondly, the resulting categorisation was scrutinised to find consistency in the outcomes. When divergences in categorisation were found, the matter was discussed until the evaluators reached an agreement. At the same time, this procedure guarantees in itself the validity of obtained outcomes of the content analysis.

In order to analyse the data, a descriptive and bivariate analysis was carried out using SPSS software. The bivariate analysis was based on Pearson correlations.

Table 2
Analysed items.

Variable	Description	Authors
Number of words	Count the number of words included in the slogan.	Garrido and Ramos (2006), Ortega et al. (2006), Pike (2004), Donaire and Galí (2012).
Number of empty words and words with meaning	Count the number of empty words (pronouns, prepositions, conjunctions, etc) and words with meaning (nouns, verbs or adjectives).	Garrido and Ramos (2006)
Brand name included in the slogan (Yes/No)	Consider whether the brand name is included in the slogan or not.	Klenosky and Gitelson (1997), Kohli et al. (2007), Ortega et al. (2006), Garrido and Ramos (2006).
Positon of the brand name in the slogan	Determine if the brand name is located outside, at the beginning or at the end of the slogan.	Ortega et al. (2006)
1. Outside the slogan		
2. At the beginning of the slogan		
3. At the end of the slogan		
Orientation of the content	Determine whether the slogan tries to highlight some of the characteristics of the destination (supply oriented) or the slogan appeals to visitors to perform some action (demand oriented).	Garrido and Ramos (2006), Klenosky and Gitelson (1997), Donaire and Galí (2012), Garrido and Ramos (2006).
1. Supply oriented		
2. Demand oriented		
Geographical context	Detect references to destination's geographical location, considering various levels.	Garrido & Ramos (2006), Obiol (2002), Donaire and Galí (2012).
1. None		
2. Specific Region		
3. Undefined		
Focus of the slogan	Determine the type of message that is sent through the slogan.	Lee et al. (2006)
1. Buy us because we are good		
2. Common attribute-based		
3. Unique attribute-focused		
4. Exclusive appeal		
5. Average Joe		
Semantic field	Determine the meaning of the slogan considering cognitive appeals, affective appeals or conative appeals.	Gartner (1994), Pike et al. (2004), Donaire and Galí (2012).
1. Cognitive		
2. Affective		
3. Conative		

Table 3
Descriptive statistics by type of words.

Variable	N	%	Min.	Max.	Average	Median	St. Dev.
Global (n=120)							
Number of words	423	100.0	1	10	3.5	3	1.68
Number of meaning words	318	75.2	1	6	2.7	2	0.98
Number of empty words	105	24.8	0	4	0.9	1	1.07
National (n=46)							
Number of words	178	100.0	2	10	3.9	3	2.02
Number of meaning words	127	71.4	1	6	2.8	3	1.06
Number of empty words	51	28.7	0	4	1.1	1	1.22
Regional (n=34)							
Number of words	122	100.0	2	8	3.6	3	1.50
Number of meaning words	95	77.9	2	5	2.8	2	1.04
Number of empty words	27	22.1	0	4	0.8	0,5	1.01
Local (n=40)							
Number of words	123	100.0	1	6	3.18	3	1.29
Number of meaning words	96	78.1	1	5	2.4	2	0.81
Number of empty words	27	21.9	0	3	0.7	0	0.92

Table 4
Frequency of number of words.

Number of words		No. of words		No. meaning words		No. empty words	
		N	%	N	%	n	%
Global							
	0	0	0.00	0	0.00	58	48.3
	1	2	1.7	5	4.7	34	28.3
	2	39	32.5	61	50.8	17	14.2
	3	29	24.2	33	27.5	7	5.8
	4 or more	50	41.7	21	17.5	4	3.3
Total		**120**	**100**	**120**	**100**	**120**	**100**
National							
	0	0	0.00	0	0.00	18	39.1
	1	0	0.00	2	4.4	15	32.6
	2	15	32.6	20	43.5	6	13.0
	3	9	19.6	15	32.6	4	8.7
	4 or more	22	47.8	9	19.6	3	6.5
Total		**46**	**100**	**46**	**100**	**0**	**100**
Regional							
	0	0	0.0	0	0.0	17	50.0
	1	0	0.0	0	0.0	10	29.4
	2	10	29.4	19	55.9	5	14.7
	3	8	23.5	6	17.7	1	2.9
	4 or more	16	47.1	9	26.5	1	2.9
Total		**34**	**100**	**34**	**100**	**34**	**100**
Local							
	0	0	0.0	0	0.0	23	57.5
	1	2	5.0	3	7.5	9	22.5
	2	14	35.0	22	55.0	6	15.0
	3	12	30.0	12	30.0	2	5.0
	4 or more	12	30.0	3	7.5	0	0.0
Total		**40**	**100**	**40**	**100**	**40**	**100**

4. Results

Findings reveal that the world's 50 leading tourism countries do not all use a slogan as part of their communication strategy. In fact, in 10% of cases there was no slogan to support the logo. These destinations are therefore not exploiting the benefits of a slogan in their communication strategy.

5. Structure of the slogan

The results of this study firstly show the average number of words in each slogan to be 3.53, with a minimum of one and a maximum of 10. As shown in Table 4, more than half of the slogans contain one to three words, with fewer slogans as the number of words increases. These results are also in line with previous research (Donaire & Galí, 2012; Garrido & Ramos, 2006; Ortega, 1988). Therefore, it is worth noting that most destinations tend to try to minimize the number of words in their slogans in order to increase their effectiveness (Pike, 2004).

Secondly, Garrido, Rey, and Ramos (2012) also established the importance of determining the types of words that make up slogans, distinguishing between whether the words have meaning, that is, if they are nouns, verbs or adjectives, or are empty words (pronouns, prepositions, conjunctions, etc). Thus, there is a clear trend towards a greater number of words with meaning over empty words, indicating that slogans tend to try to summarize their ideas by using a greater number of nouns, verbs or adjectives, which clearly convey the attributes intended to be associated with the brand and the destination, while trying at the same time to make the sentence as short as possible. This result is in line with the findings of Garrido et al. (2012). In the analysed sample of 150 tourism destination slogans, Table 3 shows that 75.2% of the total number of 423 detected words, are words with meaning, and the remaining 24.8% are empty words. In addition, Table 4 shows that almost all slogans use at least one word with meaning and that a significant proportion of slogans (48.3%) do not include any empty words. Therefore, a large number of slogans are clearly comprised of only words with meaning. For instance, 'Go Turkey', 'Timeless Charm' and 'Experience Macao' would be included in this context. All these patterns are common for the three geographical levels analysed in the sample.

Table 5 shows positive correlations between the number of words and whether they have meaning or are empty. These correlations are statistically significant (p-value < 0.01). This indicates that the more words included in the slogan, the more empty words and more words with meaning it has. These results demonstrate the trends in slogan structure, reaffirming that the higher the number of words in the slogan, the more complex it is, and this has a possible effect on how easy it is to remember (Pike, 2004).

One of the functions of slogans is their contribution to associating the brand with certain transmitted values and the exclusive use of these (Garrido et al., 2012; Garrido, 2005; Kohli et al., 2007; Obiol, 2002; Ortega et al., 2006). Thus, including the brand name

Table 5
Pearson correlations.

Variables	Number of words	No. words with meaning	No. empty words
Number of words	1	.789**	.833**
No. words with meaning	.798**	1	.332**
No. empty words	.833**	.332**	1

** Correlation is significant at the 0.01 level (bilateral).

Table 6
Positon of the brand name in the slogan.

	National		Regional		Local		Total	
	N	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**
Not in the slogan	19	41.3	20	58.8	13	32.5	52	43.3
At the beginning of the slogan	14	30.4	5	14.7	9	22.5	28	23.3
At the end of the slogan	13	28.3	9	26.5	18	45.0	40	33.3
Total	**46**	**100**	**34**	**100**	**40**	**100**	**120**	**100**

Table 7
Content orientation.

Variables	**National**		**Regional**		**Local**		**Total**	
	N	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**
Supply	26	56.5	24	70.6	26	65.0	76	63.3
Demand	20	43.5	10	29.4	14	35.0	44	36.7
Total	**46**	**100.0**	**34**	**100.0**	**40**	**100.0**	**120**	**100.0**

Table 8
Geographical context.

Variables	National		Regional		Local		Total	
	N	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**
Specific region	30	65.2	20	58.8	30	75.0	80	66.7
None	12	26.1	13	38.3	7	17.5	32	26.7
Undefined	4	8.7	1	2.9	3	7.5	8	6.6
Total	**46**	**100**	**34**	**100**	**40**	**100**	**120**	**100**

Table 9
Focus of the slogan.

Variables	National		Regional		Local		Total	
	N	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**
Buy us because we are good	9	19.6	2	5.8	7	17.5	18	15.0
Common attribute-based	11	23.9	14	41.2	5	12.5	30	25.0
Unique attribute-based	1	2.2	0	0.0	2	5.0	3	2.5
Exclusive appeal	17	36.9	17	50.0	17	42.5	51	42.5
Average Joe	8	17.4	1	2.9	9	22.5	18	15.0
Total	**46**	**100.0**	**34**	**100.0**	**40**	**100.0**	**120**	**100.0**

Cramer V: 0.261; p-value: 0.037

Table 10
Semantic field.

Variables	National		Regional		Local		Total	
	N	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**	**N**	**%**
Cognitive	15	32.6	17	50.0	17	42.5	49	40.8
Affective	12	26.1	7	20.6	11	27.5	30	25.0
Conative	19	41.3	10	29.4	12	30.0	41	34.2
Total	**46**	**100.0**	**34**	**100.0**	**40**	**100.0**	**120**	**100.0**

Cramer V: 0.112; P-value: 0.560

in the slogan has a positive effect on the association of ideas to be conveyed, while also reinforcing these ideas with the brand name and allowing the inclusion of a distinctive and inimitable element, as Pike (2004) points out. In the case of the tourist destinations analysed here, it was found that 56.6% included the brand name in the slogan, while in the remaining 43.4% the name of the destination is absent. This is also consistent for national and local slogans, which include the brand name in the slogan in 58.7% and 67.5% respectively. However, regional slogans tend to place the brand name outside of the slogan (58.82%). Therefore, most of the slogans take advantage of the benefits of this practice to transmit ideas associated with the destination. This contrasts with the findings of Ortega et al. (2006). In their study, the authors observed that 75% of the slogans of tourist companies did not include the brand name. This may be due to the difference between tourism companies and tourist destinations, as the place brand is a core element of the destination brand for destinations, representing 'an opportunity for ephemeral difference not previously considered' (Pike, 2004, p. 7). This is an issue that can be verified by means of the position of the brand name in the slogan. Table 6, considering total values, it is shown a certain balance between slogans that include the brand name at the beginning and those that include it at the end of the slogan. Observing the results by geographical area, findings reveal differences between these and the general results, as Cramer V is statistically significant (p-value < 0.05). In particular, national slogans tend to include the brand name at the beginning of the slogan (30.4%), local slogans put it at the end (45%), and regional slogans tend not to include the name in the slogan at all. In this context, the most important issue is inclusion of the place name in the slogan, in order to reduce its inimitability. However, in some cases it is not necessary to include the place name in the slogan, considering that destination slogans are generally used alongside the mane of the destination in marketing communications (Tables 7–10).

5.1. Positioning of the slogan

Several variables determine the positioning of a slogan. These variables allow the marketer to determine the aims of the advertising message. One of the first ways of approaching this is to look at the orientation of the slogan's content, that is, to consider whether the message is aimed at supply or demand.

In the case of messages aimed at supply, these are intended to highlight some of the characteristics of the destination, such as attributes related to its resources ('Green Mediterranean' in the case of Istria), the peculiarities of the local population ('Amazing Thailand, it begins with the people'), or using its historical roots as appeal ('Greece, all time classic'). In contrast, messages aimed at demand often ask visitors to perform some action, such as, for example, 'Rendez vous en France', 'Move your imagination' in the case of Poland or 'See Toronto now'. The results show a tendency towards messages aimed at supply (63.3%). Although the number of slogans formulated from the point of view of supply has also stood out in other studies (Donaire & Galí, 2012; Garrido & Ramos, 2006), the difference is similar to this study, where messages aimed at demand amount to 36.67% of the total. Of the slogans aimed at demand, there is a current trend using 'Visit' or 'Go' and the name of the destination as a conventional formula (7.5%), which, although potentially effective for use in search engines, eliminates any uniqueness in the advertising message. This is also linked to the fact that it is public administrations that promote destinations and create their slogans. Govers and Go (2009) argued that public administrations tend to prioritize images and narratives that come from authentic cultural identities (and are therefore presented from a supply perspective), while private organizations prefer to focus their efforts on creating commercialized experiences (and so are shown from the demand perspective).

A further property of the positioning of slogans is specifying the geographical context. Findings showed that 26.7% of slogans made no reference to the destination's geographical location, whereas 66.7% did, whether local, regional or continental. For example, Malaysia mentions the continent where it is located through the slogan 'Truly Asia'. This is the same strategy followed

by Prague with the slogan 'In the heart of Europe'. Specifying the precise geographical context is actually an effort to geographically locate the destination brand, using one of the hierarchically superior brands, possibly better positioned in the minds of tourists (Caldwell & Freire, 2004). In contrast, only 6.67% of slogans were found to have some geographical reference, without clearly specifying the location of the destination; this is the case of the United States with the slogan 'Discover this land, like never before', Flanders using the slogan 'State of the art', or Dublin with the slogan 'A breath of fresh air'. This strategy is focused more on reinforcing the idea of the geographical space, than on its geographical location in relation to other brands. This tendency was shared by all the geographical scopes, since no statistical relationship could be found.

Lee et al. (2006) identified five different categories to determine the focus of slogans, and these have been used to classify the slogans in this study. An analysis of the messages included in the sample confirms firstly a trend to generate messages related to the category 'exclusive appeal' (42.50%), which aims to evoke emotional attachment to the destination. This is a positioning strategy used by regions, more than countries and cities. Some of the messages found in this category would be 'Making it happen' by New South Wales, or 'Catalunya Experience', for regions; 'Keep Exploring' by Canada, and 'Morocco - Travel for real' for countries; and 'I Amsterdam' or 'Be Berlin' for cities. In general, it is proven that such slogans successfully evoke emotional attachment, as in the case of 'I love NY' (Lee et al., 2006). Secondly, messages that are attribute-based generally focus on a 'common attribute' (25%). These messages are based on product attributes that are not unique and can be found in other destinations, representing one of the most recurrent constraints for successful slogans (Lee et al., 2006). This type of positioning is mainly used by regions than countries and cities. For instance, Croatia's slogan 'The Mediterranean as it once was' or the Czech Republic's 'Land of stories' are included in this category. In the case of countries; East Java's slogan 'A tropical paradise in the world', or 'Adventure province, Eastern Cape' in the case of regions; and for cities, Buenos Aires' slogan 'Cultural Capital of Latin America' and 'Hong Kong: Asia's world city'.

Thirdly, in the case of countries only the United Arab Emirates' slogan has been classified as 'unique attribute-based', with 'Seven Emirates, one destination'; and in the case of cities, only two cases were identified: 'This is Athens' and 'This is New York city'. In all these cases, the intention of the slogan is to reaffirm the uniqueness of the destination, appealing to the individual character of the place. Fourthly, another common category is those slogans classified as 'average Joe' (15%), which are more common in countries and cities than in regions. These messages are 'characterised by an ambiguity of meaning or an image mismatch' (Lee et al., 2006, p. 825). Some examples from the sample included in this category are 'Germany, the travel destination', 'Ukraine.com' and 'Visit Sweden', for countries; 'Go Tokyo' and 'Welcome! Travel. Taipei' for cities; and 'Go! Central Japan' by Chubu, for regions. Finally, there are the slogans classified as 'buy us because we are good'. These slogans try to evoke positive feelings attached to the destination through adjectives that show the superiority of the destination in comparison to other places, and are more used by countries and cites than regions. Some of the representative slogans of this category are, for instance, 'Beautiful China', 'Wonderful Indonesia', 'Incredible India', 'Definitely Dubai', 'Wow! It's Moscow' and 'Magnanimous Delhi'.

The semantic field is another variable to be considered in the analysis of slogans, and represents a first approach to analysing the meaning of the slogan. In this case, three categories were considered (cognitive, affective and conative), which are linked to studies on consumer behaviour and analysis of the tourist image to determine the intent of the semantic field used. Firstly, there are appeals to the more tangible characteristics of the product, and refer to issues related to the cognitive component (40.8%). Secondly, the results also show that in the slogans analysed, action by the visitor is petitioned recurringly through the conative context (34.2%). Finally, 25% of the advertising messages we studied are emotional in nature, and aimed at influencing the affective component. Hence, it can be conclude that through their slogans, destinations try to reinforce their attributes and encourage visitor action first and foremost; that is, they try to persuade visitors to travel to the destination. In other words, they try to influence the tourist's decision-making process. It should be noted that the results do not confirm a statistical relationship between these three categories by geographical scope. So, results can be considered as global.

6. Conclusions

Tourism slogans are an effort to condense the diversity of a destination into a few key concepts. DMOs make an effort to summarize the destination's attributes and select the one that best represents it. Slogans are an important part of the brand identity of tourist destinations, and are also a good indication of the tourism strategy followed by the organisation. However, a very limited number of studies have analysed tourist slogans, as highlighted by Lee et al. (2006) and Pike (2009). Similarly, the few that do exist are limited to a specific geographical area, meaning more global studies are required (Pike, 2004).

This paper examines the tourism slogans of 150 of the main tourism destinations around the world on a national, regional and local level, and considers a range of variables tested in previous studies (Klenosky & Gitelson, 1997; Kohli et al., 2007; Lee et al., 2006; Pike, 2004).

Findings have revealed that the use of slogans is not completely generalised, as 30 of the destinations in the final sample did not use a slogan. In this sense, there are destinations that only base their brand strategy on the design of a logo, a symbol or a name, without considering using a slogan, even though their benefits are demonstrated in academic literature. The use of slogans is part of a more generalised tourism strategy, within the context of competition between territories. These slogans coincide with the spaces attracting a high level of interest, and we assume have a solid brand in the international market.

Based on this analysis, a number of relatively common features were found when identifying slogan profiles, in the three geographical scopes. Consistent with previous studies, the common features detected were as follows: slogans comprising few words (Garrido & Ramos, 2006; Pike, 2004); endowed with meaning (Garrido et al., 2012); oriented to the supply-side (Garrido et al., 2012); and with a specific geographical reference (Donaire & Galí, 2012; Obiol, 2002). This means that the tourism strategies centre around two basic criteria. The first is that they are extremely simple. Territorial brands use as few words (and images related to the words) and as few concepts as they can. The second is that the slogans have an exclusive appeal, with emphasis on the affective component in the message. This demonstrates a transition from descriptive (cognitive) strategies to one that appeals to the emotions.

Slight differences between slogans were also found in two particular areas Firstly, cities and countries behave differently to regions regarding the position of the brand name in the slogan. Both cities and countries integrate their brand name within the slogan, whereas regions usually do not incorporate them. Secondly, there was a notable diversity in the focus of the slogan, depending on the geographical scope. Local and national slogans

focus on the idea 'buy us because we are good'. However regions use 'common attribute-based' slogans more frequently. We found that country and city branding strategies are similar, and that they differ from region strategies.

Most of the regions do not have a tourism positioning on an international scale, apart from some exceptions, such as California, Scotland or Flanders. In a context of fierce competition, countries and some large cities can be easily positioned in the tourism imagery. However, regions are more focused on nearby market. It is for this reason that the strategy of regions is not a strategy of assertiveness but a presentation of their competitive attributes.

Considering the limitations of this study, it is relevant to highlight that this article is based on slogans as part of a wider branding and marketing strategy. In this context, further research could be done along these lines to consider how slogans fit into other aspects of branding strategies and destination marketing. At the same time, this article is based on the analysis of consolidated tourist destinations, and not on new, emerging destinations. Therefore, future research could consider a comparative analysis between consolidated and emerging destinations.

References

Aaker, D. A. (1996). *Building strong brands*. New York: Free Press.

Balakrishnan, M. S. (2009). Strategic branding of destinations: A framework. *European Journal of Marketing*, *43*(5/6), 611–629.

Blain, C., Levy, S. E., & Ritchie, J. R. B. (2005). Destination branding: Insights and practices from destination management organizations. *Journal of Travel Research*, *43*(4), 328–338.

Caldwell, N., & Freire, J. R. (2004). The differences between branding a country, a region and a city: Applying the Brand box model. *Journal of Brand Management*, *12*(1), 50–61.

Cai, L. A. (2002). Cooperative branding for rural destinations. *Annals of Tourism Research*, *29*(3), 720–742.

Cai, L. A., Gartner, W. C., & Munar, A. M. (2009). Tourism branding: A community affair In: L. A. Cai, W. C. Gartner, & A. M. Munar (Eds.), *Tourism branding: Communities in action* (pp. 1–16). United Kindom: Emerald Group.

Dahlen, M., & Rosengren, S. (2005). Brands affect slogans affect brands? Competitive interference, brand equity and the brand–slogan link. *Journal of Brand Management*, *12*, 151–164.

Dass, M., Kohli, C., Kumar, P., & Thomas, S. (2014). A study of the antecedents of slogans liking. *Journal of Business Research*, *67*(12), 2504–2511.

Donaire, J. A., & Galí, N. (2012). Eslóganes turísticos: Un análisis de los eslóganes de los destinos catalanes. *Boletín Délelőtt Louisiana Asociación Délelőtt Geógrafos Españoles*, *60*, 521–533.

Fakeye, P. C., & Crompton, J. L. (1991). Image differences between prospective, first-time, and repeat visitors to the Lower Rio Grande Valley. *Journal of Travel Research*, *30*(2), 10–16.

Garrido, M. (2005). La publicidad turística en Andalucía (2002–2005): Andalucía sólo hay una. La tuya vs. Andalucía te quiere. *Questiones publicitarias*, *1*(10), 77–97.

Garrido, M., & Ramos, M. (2006). *La evolución del eslogan en la publicidad gráfica española, III Simposium de profesores universitarios de creatividad publicitaria. Universidad Ramón Llull*. Barcelona: Trípodos,.

Garrido, M., Rey, J., & Ramos, M. (2012). Evolución y desarrollo del eslogan publicitario: Tercer análisis. *Pensar la publicidad*, *6*(2), 407–426.

Gartner, W. C. (1994). Image formation process. *Journal of Travel Tourism Marketing*, *2*(2–3), 191–216.

Gartner, W. C. (2009). Deconstructing brand equity In: L. A. Cai, W. C. Gartner, & A. M. Munar (Eds.), *Tourism branding: Communities in action* (pp. 52–64). United Kindom: Emerald Group.

Godfrey, J. (1984). I love New York. *Tourism Management*, *5*(2), 148–149.

Govers, R., & Go, F. (2009). *Place brading: glocal, virtual and physical identities, constructed, imagined and experienced*. Hampshire: Macmillan,.

Kassarjian, H. H. (1977). Content analysis in consumer research. *Journal of Consumer Research*, *4*(1), 8–18.

Keller, K. (2003). *Strategic brand management: Building, measuring and managing brand equity*. Upper Saddle River, New Jersey: Prentice-Hall,.

Keller, K., & Lehmann, D. R. (2006). Brands and branding: Research findings and future priorities. *Marketing Science*, *25*(6), 740–759.

Klenosky, D. B., & Gitelson, R. E. (1997). Characteristics of effective tourism promotion slogans. *Annals of Tourism Research*, *24*(1), 235–238.

Kohli, C., Leuthesser, L., & Suri, R. (2007). Got slogan? Guidelines for creating effective slogans. *Business Horizons*, *50*, 415–422.

Kohli, C., Thomas, S., & Suri, R. (2013). Are you in good hands? Slogans recall: What really matters. *Journal of Advanced Research*, *53*(1), 31–42.

Kolbe, R. H., & Burnett, M. S. (1991). Content analysis research: An examination of applications with directives for improving research reliability and objectiviy. *Journal of Consumer Research*, *18*, 243–250.

Kotler, P., & Gertner, D. (2002). Country as brand, product, and beyond: A place marketing and brand management perspective. *Journal of Brand Management*, *9*(4), 249–261.

Knox, S. (2004). Positioning and branding your organization. *Journal of Product Brand Management*, *13*(2), 105–115.

Laran, J., Dalton, A., & Andrade, E. (2011). The curious case of behavioral backlash: Why brands produce priming effects and slogans produce reverse priming effects. *Journal of Consumer Research*, *37*, 999–1014.

Letho, X., Lee, G., & Ismail, J. (2014). Measuring congruence of affective images of destinations and their slogans. *International Journal of Tourism Research*, *16*(3), 250–260.

Lee, G., Cai, L., & O'leary, J. (2006). WWW.Branding.States.US: An analysis of brand-building element in the US state tourism websites. *Tourism Management*, *27*, 815–828.

Mckercher, B., & Ritchie, M. (1997). The third tier of public sector tourism: A profile of local governmenttourism officers in Australia. *Journal of Travel Research*, *36*(1), 66–72.

Morgan, N., & Pritchard, A. (1998). *Tourism promotion and power: creating images. creating identities.* Chichester: John Wiley & Sons,.

Munar, A. M. (2009). Challenging the brand In: L. A. Cai, W. C. Gartner, & A. M. Munar (Eds.), *Tourism branding: Communities in action* (pp. 17–36). United Kindom: Emerald Group.

Obiol, E. (2002). Marcas turísticas y territorio: Un análisis geográfico del turismo valenciano. *Cuadernos Délelőtt Turismo*, *9*, 85–101.

Ortega, E. (1988). EL valor del slogan en los spots publicitarios: Análisis empírico de su papel en Televisión Española. *Campaña*, *337*(16–31), 22–29.

Ortega, E., Mora, P., & Rauld, L. (2006). El eslogan en el sector turístico español. *Cuadernos Délelőtt Turismo*, *17*, 127–146.

Pike, S. (2009). Destination brand positions of a competitive set of near-home destinations. *Tourism Management*, *30*, 857–866.

Pike, S. (2005). Tourism destination branding complexity. *Journal of Product Brand Management*, *14*(4), 258–259.

Pike, S. (2004). Destination brand positioning slogan: Towards the development of a set of accountability criteria. *Acta Turística*, *16*(2), 102–124.

Pike, S., & Ryan, R. (2004). Destination positioning analysis through a comparison of cognitive, affective, and conative perceptions. *Journal of Travel Research*, *42*, 333–342.

Richardson, J., & Cohen, J. (1993). State slogans: The case of the missing USP. *Journal of Travel and Tourism Marketing*, *2*(2–3), 91–109.

Rooney, J. A. (1995). Branding: A trend for today and tomorrow. *Journal of Product Brand Management*, *4*(4), 48–55.

Simeon, R. (2006). A conceptual model linking brand building strategies and Japanese popular culture. *Marketing Intelligence Planning*, *24*(5), 463–476.

Supphellen, M., & Nygaardsvik, I. (2002). Testing country brand slogans: Conceptual development and empirical ilustration of a simple normative model. *Brand Management*, *9*(4–5), 384–395.

Tasci, A. D. A., & Gartner, W. C. (2009). Practical framework for destination branding In: L. A. Cai, W. C. Gartner, & A. M. Munar (Eds.), *Tourism Branding: Communities in Action* (pp. 149–160). United Kindom: Emerald Group.

World Tourism Organisation (2012). World Tourism Barometer, 10.

World Tourism Organisation (2014). World Tourism Barometer, 12.